

LAB 12

Function Overriding & Abstract Classes

Learning Objectives

By the end of this lab, you should be able to:

- Explain what function overriding is and how it differs from overloading.
- Use the `virtual` keyword to enable runtime polymorphism.
- Use a base-class pointer to call a derived class's overridden function.
- Use the `override` keyword for safety when redefining a virtual function.
- Define an abstract class using a pure virtual function (`= 0`).
- Understand why an abstract class cannot be instantiated directly.
- Force derived classes to implement specific functions through pure virtuals.

1. What Is Function Overriding?

Function overriding happens when a derived class provides its OWN version of a function that already exists in the base class — same name, same parameter list, same return type. When you call that function through a base-class pointer or reference, C++ runs the derived class's version, not the base's.

This is the essence of runtime polymorphism: the same line of code (`emp->salary()`) can call DIFFERENT functions depending on what kind of object `emp` actually points to at the moment.

Overriding vs Overloading — they sound similar, they aren't

Aspect	Overloading	Overriding
Same name?	Yes	Yes
Different parameters?	YES — that's the whole point	NO — must match exactly
Where it happens	Inside one class (or globally)	Across a base class and a derived class
When resolved	At compile time	At RUNTIME (with virtual)

The two keywords that make it work

- *virtual* — written in the BASE class function. It tells C++: "if a derived class redefines this, use the derived version even through a base pointer."

- *override* — written in the DERIVED class function (optional but recommended). The compiler will check that you really are overriding something — if you typo the name or change the parameter list, it'll catch the bug.

Without virtual, overriding doesn't really work

If the base function is NOT virtual, then *emp->salary()* will always call the BASE version — even when *emp* points to a Manager. This is called "static binding" and it defeats the whole purpose of polymorphism. **Always mark the base function virtual.**

2. Code 1 — Overriding the salary() Function

Goal: a base Employee class with a virtual salary function. Two derived classes — Manager and Developer — override it with their own values. We then use a SINGLE Employee pointer to call both.

The Code

```
#include <iostream>
using namespace std;

class Employee {
public:
    virtual void salary() {
        cout << "Base employee salary." << endl;
    }
};

class Manager : public Employee {
public:
    void salary() override {
        cout << "Manager salary: 50000 BDT" << endl;
    }
};

class Developer : public Employee {
public:
    void salary() override {
        cout << "Developer salary: 40000 BDT" << endl;
    }
};

int main() {
    Employee* emp;        // a base-class pointer
    Manager m;
    emp = &m;              // pointer now holds the address of a Manager
    emp->salary();         // calls Manager::salary – NOT Employee::salary

    Developer d;
    emp = &d;              // same pointer, now points to a Developer
    emp->salary();         // calls Developer::salary
}
```

Code Breakdown

Code	What it does
virtual void salary()	← The virtual keyword in the base class is what unlocks runtime polymorphism.
void salary() override	← Both derived classes redefine salary with the same signature. The override keyword asks the compiler to verify the match.

Code	What it does
<code>Employee* emp;</code>	← A pointer of the BASE type. It can point to any kind of Employee — including Manager or Developer.
<code>emp = &m;</code>	← Store the address of a Manager object inside an Employee pointer. Legal because Manager IS-A Employee.
<code>emp->salary();</code>	← The crucial line. Because salary is virtual, C++ checks AT RUNTIME what kind of object emp actually points to, then calls THAT class's version.

Expected Output

► Output

Manager salary: 50000 BDT
Developer salary: 40000 BDT



One pointer, many behaviors

Notice how the same variable *emp* produces different output depending on what it points to. This is the heart of polymorphism — code that works uniformly with many different types. If you had ten different employee types, this main function would still be just two pointer reassignments.

3. Code 2 — Overriding for Different Shapes

Goal: a Shape base class with virtual area and circumference functions. Three derived classes — Rectangle, Triangle, and Circle — each override both functions with their own formulas.

The Code

```
#include <iostream>
using namespace std;

class Shape {
public:
    virtual void area() {
        cout << "Area for shape." << endl;
    }
    virtual void circumference() {
        cout << "Circumference for shape." << endl;
    }
};

class Rectangle : public Shape {
    float length, width;
public:
    Rectangle(float l, float w) { length = l; width = w; }
    void area() override {
        cout << "Rectangle Area: " << length * width << endl;
    }
    void circumference() override {
        cout << "Rectangle Circumference: " << 2 * (length + width) << endl;
    }
};

class Triangle : public Shape {
    float a, b, c, height;
public:
    Triangle(float x, float y, float z, float h) {
        a = x; b = y; c = z; height = h;
    }
    void area() override {
        cout << "Triangle Area: " << 0.5 * a * height << endl;
    }
    void circumference() override {
        cout << "Triangle Circumference: " << a + b + c << endl;
    }
};

class Circle : public Shape {
    float radius;
public:
    Circle(float r) { radius = r; }
    void area() override {
        cout << "Circle Area: " << 3.1416 * radius * radius << endl;
    }
}
```

```

    void circumference() override {
        cout << "Circle Circumference: " << 2 * 3.1416 * radius << endl;
    }
};

int main() {
    Rectangle rect(10, 5);
    Triangle tri(6, 8, 10, 4);
    Circle cir(7);

    cout << "Rectangle:" << endl;
    rect.area();
    rect.circumference();
    cout << "\nTriangle:" << endl;
    tri.area();
    tri.circumference();
    cout << "\nCircle:" << endl;
    cir.area();
    cir.circumference();
}

```

Code Breakdown

Code	What it does
virtual void area() / circumference()	← Two virtual functions in the base. Each derived class provides its own formula.
Three derived classes	← Rectangle, Triangle, Circle — each with its own private data and overriding functions.
rect.area(), tri.area(), cir.area()	← Called directly on the objects (no base pointer here). Each call runs its own class's version.
The Shape base versions	← The base "Area for shape." / "Circumference for shape." messages never actually print — every derived class overrides them. The base versions exist as a safe fallback.

Expected Output

► Output

```

Rectangle:
Rectangle Area: 50
Rectangle Circumference: 30

Triangle:
Triangle Area: 12
Triangle Circumference: 24

Circle:
Circle Area: 153.938

```

```
Circle Circumference: 43.9824
```

 Notice: Shape's own area() is never useful

Look at `Shape::area()` — it just prints "Area for shape." That's not a real area; it's a placeholder.

Every meaningful Shape MUST be a specific shape with real dimensions. This is exactly the situation that abstract classes are designed for — coming up next.

4. Abstract Classes — When the Base Has No Meaningful Implementation

Sometimes the base class can't sensibly do anything on its own. What is the area of "shape"? What is the salary of a generic "employee"? These are meaningless — only specific kinds of shapes and specific kinds of employees have real values.

C++ lets us express this with a pure virtual function — a virtual function with `= 0`; instead of a body. A class that contains even one pure virtual function becomes an abstract class.

Syntax of a pure virtual function

```
class Shape {
public:
    virtual double area() = 0;        // pure virtual – no body
    virtual void   display() = 0;    // pure virtual
};
```

What "abstract" means in practice

- **Cannot be instantiated.** *Shape s;* is a compile error. The class exists only to be inherited from.
- **Can be used as a pointer or reference type.** *Shape* s = new Circle(3);* is fine — the pointer is *Shape*, but the actual object is a *Circle*.
- **Forces derived classes to override.** Any class that inherits from *Shape* MUST provide its own *area()* and *display()* — otherwise THAT derived class is also abstract.

Why pure virtual is better than "empty body"

You could try writing *virtual void area() {}* with an empty body — but then derived classes are not FORCED to override it. They could silently inherit the do-nothing version. `= 0` is a contract: "every concrete derived class MUST provide its own version." The compiler enforces it.

5. Code 3 — An Abstract Shape Class

The Code

```
#include <iostream>
using namespace std;

class Shape {
public:
    virtual double area() = 0;
    virtual void   display() = 0;
    ~Shape() {
        cout << "Destructor called" << endl;
    }
};

class Circle : public Shape {
```



```

    double r;
public:
    Circle(double r) { this->r = r; }
    double area() override { return 3.14159 * r * r; }
    void display() override {
        cout << "Circle area: " << area() << endl;
    }
};

class Rectangle : public Shape {
    double w, h;
public:
    Rectangle(double w, double h) { this->w = w; this->h = h; }
    double area() override { return w * h; }
    void display() override {
        cout << "Rectangle area: " << area() << endl;
    }
};

int main() {
    // Shape s;          // ERROR – cannot instantiate an abstract class

    Shape* s = new Circle(3);
    s->display();
    s = new Rectangle(4, 5);
    s->display();
    delete s;

    Circle c1(4);
    c1.display();
    Rectangle r1(6, 7);
    r1.display();
}

```

Code Breakdown

Code	What it does
<code>virtual double area() = 0;</code>	← Pure virtual — makes Shape abstract. No body.
<code>~Shape()</code>	← Destructor. Will run automatically when an object goes out of scope (c1 and r1 at the end of main).
<code>Shape s;</code>	← If you uncomment this line, the program will not compile — abstract classes cannot be instantiated.
<code>Shape* s = new Circle(3);</code>	← PERFECTLY LEGAL — the pointer is Shape, the object is Circle. Polymorphism in action.
<code>s->display();</code>	← Calls Circle's display because display is virtual and s actually points to a Circle.

Code	What it does
<code>delete s;</code>	← Frees the heap-allocated Rectangle. (The earlier Circle was lost — see warning below.)
<code>c1.display(); r1.display();</code>	← Direct calls on stack-allocated derived objects — no base pointer needed here.

Expected Output

► Output

```
Circle area: 28.2743
Rectangle area: 20
Destructor called
Circle area: 50.2654
Rectangle area: 42
Destructor called
Destructor called
```

⚠ Two important gotchas in this code

1. **Memory leak:** the first *new Circle(3)* is overwritten by the new Rectangle without ever being deleted. In real code, always delete each heap object exactly once.
2. **Destructor should be virtual:** when you delete an object through a base pointer, only the BASE destructor runs unless the destructor is *virtual*. The rule of thumb: **if a class has any virtual function, give it a virtual destructor** — write *virtual ~Shape() { ... }*.

6. Code 4 — Abstract Employee with Two Concrete Types

Goal: an Employee abstract class with two concrete implementations — FullTimeEmployee (monthly salary based on per-day rate) and PartTimeEmployee (hourly billing). This is the classic real-world use of abstract classes.

The Code

```
#include <iostream>
using namespace std;

class Employee {
protected:
    string name;
    int id;
public:
    Employee(string name, int id) {
        this->name = name;
        this->id = id;
    }
    virtual double calculateSalary() = 0;    // pure virtual
};
```

```

    virtual void    display()          = 0;    // pure virtual
};

class FullTimeEmployee : public Employee {
    double PerDaySalary;
public:
    FullTimeEmployee(string name, int id, double salary)
        : Employee(name, id) {
        PerDaySalary = salary;
    }
    double calculateSalary() override {
        return PerDaySalary * 30;
    }
    void display() override {
        cout << "Full Time Employee" << endl;
        cout << "Name: " << name << endl;
        cout << "ID: " << id << endl;
        cout << "Salary: " << calculateSalary() << endl;
    }
};

class PartTimeEmployee : public Employee {
    int    hoursWorked;
    double hourlyRate;
public:
    PartTimeEmployee(string name, int id, int hours, double rate)
        : Employee(name, id) {
        hoursWorked = hours;
        hourlyRate  = rate;
    }
    double calculateSalary() override {
        return hoursWorked * hourlyRate;
    }
    void display() override {
        cout << "Part Time Employee" << endl;
        cout << "Name: " << name << endl;
        cout << "ID: " << id << endl;
        cout << "Hours Worked: " << hoursWorked << endl;
        cout << "Salary: " << calculateSalary() << endl;
    }
};

int main() {
    Employee* emp;
    emp = new FullTimeEmployee("Alice", 101, 50000);
    emp->display();
    cout << endl;

    emp = new PartTimeEmployee("Bob", 102, 25, 500);
    emp->display();
    cout << endl;

    FullTimeEmployee f1("Cat", 103, 65000);
    f1.display();
}

```

```

    cout << endl;

    PartTimeEmployee p1("Nabil", 104, 15, 400);
    p1.display();
}

```

Code Breakdown

Code	What it does
protected: string name; int id;	← protected (not private) so derived classes can access these fields directly in their display functions.
Employee(string name, int id)	← Constructor of the abstract base. Even though Employee can't be instantiated directly, its constructor still runs as part of every derived constructor.
= 0;	← Both calculateSalary and display are pure virtual — FullTimeEmployee and PartTimeEmployee MUST implement them.
FullTimeEmployee(...) : Employee(name, id)	← Constructor chaining to set name and id in the base portion.
calculateSalary() override	← Two completely different salary formulas, one per class — but they share the same interface so main() can treat them uniformly.
Employee* emp = new FullTimeEmployee(...);	← Polymorphic pointer — same pointer holds two completely different concrete types over the course of main().

Expected Output

► Output

```

Full Time Employee
Name: Alice
ID: 101
Salary: 1.5e+06

```

```

Part Time Employee
Name: Bob
ID: 102
Hours Worked: 25
Salary: 12500

```

```

Full Time Employee
Name: Cat
ID: 103
Salary: 1.95e+06

```

Part Time Employee

Name: Nabil

ID: 104

Hours Worked: 15

Salary: 6000



Why this design is powerful

If you wanted to add a new employee type — say, *ContractEmployee* with a flat project fee — you just write the new class with its own *calculateSalary* and *display*. You don't touch *FullTime*, *PartTime*, or *main()* at all. The abstract *Employee* interface guarantees the new class plugs in seamlessly.

7. Quick Reference — virtual vs Pure Virtual

Aspect	virtual function	pure virtual function (= 0)
Has a body?	Yes	No (= 0 instead)
Can be called directly?	Yes	No
Class can be instantiated?	Yes	No — the class becomes abstract
Derived class MUST override?	No, override is optional	YES, otherwise derived class is also abstract
Typical use	Provide a default that derived classes may refine	Define an interface that derived classes MUST implement

8. Summary

Six things to take away from this lab:

- **Function overriding** lets a derived class redefine a function inherited from its base — same signature, different body.
- **virtual in the base class enables runtime polymorphism.** Without virtual, a base-class pointer always calls the base's version.
- **override in the derived class is optional but recommended** — it lets the compiler catch typos and signature mismatches.
- **A pure virtual function (= 0)** has no body. Any class containing one is abstract and cannot be instantiated directly.
- **Abstract classes define a contract** — derived classes **MUST** implement all pure virtual functions to become concrete.
- **If a class has virtual functions, give it a virtual destructor** so that *delete* through a base pointer cleans up properly.

9. Practice Tasks

Task 1 — Vehicle Hierarchy with Overriding

Create a base class `Vehicle` and two derived classes that override its functions.

Class `Vehicle`

- A virtual function `start()` that prints "Vehicle is starting..."
- A virtual function `fuelType()` that prints "Generic fuel."

Class Car (inherits Vehicle)

- Override `start()` to print "Car engine started with a key."
- Override `fuelType()` to print "Fuel type: Petrol".

Class ElectricBike (inherits Vehicle)

- Override `start()` to print "Bike powered on silently."
- Override `fuelType()` to print "Fuel type: Electric battery".

In main()

- Create a `Vehicle* v;` pointer.
- Point it first at a Car object, then at an ElectricBike object. Call `start()` and `fuelType()` through the pointer each time.
- Verify in the output that the derived versions run — not the base ones.

**Hint for Task 1**

Remember to mark the base functions *virtual*. Use *override* in both derived classes — try temporarily misspelling *start* as *Start* in one derived class and see how the compiler catches the mistake immediately.

Task 2 — Abstract Account Hierarchy

Design a banking system using an abstract Account base class.

Class Account (abstract)

- Protected data: `accountNumber` (int), `holderName` (string), `balance` (double). Constructor to initialize all three.
- **Pure virtual functions:** `calculateInterest()` (returns double) and `display()` (returns void).

Class SavingsAccount (inherits Account)

- Adds `interestRate` (double, e.g., 0.05 for 5%).
- `calculateInterest()` returns `balance * interestRate`.
- `display()` prints all account details including the calculated interest.

Class CurrentAccount (inherits Account)

- Adds `overdraftLimit` (double) but pays NO interest.
- `calculateInterest()` returns 0.
- `display()` prints all account details including the overdraft limit.

In main()

- Try writing `Account a;` — confirm the compiler refuses it, then comment it out.
- Use an `Account* acc;` pointer to point at one `SavingsAccount` and one `CurrentAccount`, calling `display()` on each.

- Also create one of each on the stack and call `display()` directly.

**What you should observe**

Each `display()` should print the correct details for its account type — `SavingsAccount` shows interest, `CurrentAccount` shows the overdraft limit. The same call through the same pointer type produces different output depending on the actual object. That is polymorphism doing its job.

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